Pypomp: Inference for partially observed Markov process models in Python with JAX [DRAFT]

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Abstract

Nonlinear, non-Gaussian partially observed Markov process (POMP) models arise in various areas including epidemiology, ecology, and robotics. Model-based inferences typically involve computationally intensive Monte Carlo methods. We introduce Pypomp, a Python library for data analysis via POMP models that uses JAX to take advantage of GPU hardware, automatic differentiation, and just-in-time compilation. Pypomp follows the design principles of the widely used R package pomp, while obtaining considerably higher performance: Pypomp running on one GPU can obtain the throughput of 8,000 CPU cores running pomp. A central algorithm for Pypomp is the particle filter, and Pypomp is faster on our benchmark tests than other GPU-compatible particle filter libraries. The particle filter is differentiable, with a tunable bias-variance tradeoff.

Keywords: pomp, JAX, GPU acceleration, likelihood-based inference

1 Introduction

Partially observed Markov process (POMP) models provide a flexible framework for modeling dynamic systems whose underlying state is not directly observed. POMP models are also known as state-space models or hidden Markov models, though these alternative names are sometimes restricted to continuous and discrete states respectively. Pypomp is a Python library combining advances in hardware, software, and algorithms to provide novel capabilities for POMP models, with an emphasis on inference via particle filters. The particle filter (PF), also known as sequential Monte Carlo, provides an estimate of the likelihood of a POMP model (Arulampalam et al., 2002). The basic PF algorithm only needs to sim-

ulate from the process model, not evaluate its transition probabilities, a property known as plug-and-play (P&P) (Bretó et al., 2009). Pypomp focuses on P&P methods because they facilitate scientific modeling, enabling applications in epidemiology (Mietchen et al., 2024; Fox et al., 2022; Wen et al., 2024), ecology (Auger-Méthé et al., 2021; Marino et al., 2019; Blackwood et al., 2013), finance (Bretó, 2014), robotics (Jonschkowski et al., 2018) and other domains where nonlinear mechanistic stochastic dynamic models are pertinent. Pypomp provides P&P inference methods extending PF: maximum likelihood parameter estimation by iterated filtering (IF2) (Ionides et al., 2015), Bayesian inference by particle Markov chain Monte Carlo (Andrieu et al., 2010), and stochastic gradient descent via a differentiable particle filter (DPF) algorithm called a measurement-off-parameter (MOP) particle filter (Tan et al., 2026).

Pypomp follows the design principles of the R package pomp (King et al., 2016), providing a general framework for specifying models and inference methods, a range of pre-built models and methods, and various graphical and diagnostic tools to assist practical data analysis. Thus, Pypomp supports complete data analysis workflows, facilitating the evaluation of a range of models and statistical methods for the data under investigation. Models and methods have an interface designed so that new models can readily be tested on a range of pre-existing methods, and new methods can be tested on a range of pre-existing models. Although the method interface of Pypomp (and pomp) is not limited to P&P algorithms, prior experience with pomp has shown that P&P approaches are convenient for scientific data analysis. The computability of transition densities might in principle lead to non-P&P methods that are superior to P&P alternatives, though theoretical obstacles arise that have limited the practical scope of such algorithms (Roberts and Stramer, 2001; Karppinen et al., 2024).

Pypomp gains computationally over pomp by leveraging JAX (Bradbury et al., 2018) which provides just-in-time (JIT) compilation, automatic differentiation (AD), and capability to run on massively parallel hardware such as GPUs. When the state space is small and discrete, or the model is linear Gaussian or close enough for effective approximation using Gaussian-inspired filters such as the extended Kalman filter, the particle filter is unnecessary, and the Dynamax library (Linderman et al., 2025) provides JAX-based solutions. Other JAX-based libraries providing PF and DPF methods for POMP models include PFJAX (Lysy et al., 2022) and cuthbert (Duffield, 2026). PyDPF (Brady et al., 2026) provides a DPF using Pytorch and focused on POMP models parameterized using neural networks. The Python library particles (Chopin and Papaspiliopoulos, 2020) provides a general framework for sequential Monte Carlo computation without AD. Pypomp distinguishes itself from these other packages by (ii) following the design decisions of pomp that support a full data analysis workflow; (iii) superior performance on our benchmark tests in Table Table 1. By design, Pypomp is not limited to PF methods, for example, the approximate Bayesian computing (ABC) P&P algorithm of Marjoram et al. (2003) has been implemented. However, PF has proved an effective tool for the development and analysis of POMP models in scientific contexts, and hence it is an important algorithm for Pypomp.

With enough particles and method replications to saturate it, one GPU runs iterated filtering as fast as 3,239 to 8,659 CPU cores running pomp (Appendix B). Such replications are routine in practice: likelihood maximization involves searching from many initial parameter vectors, and Monte Carlo adjusted profile (MCAP) confidence intervals (Ionides

et al., 2017), implemented in Pypomp as the `mcap` method, require many iterated filtering searches at each point of a likelihood profile. Profile confidence intervals can be superior to the widely used observed Fisher information construction, even in the case of linear Gaussian POMP models for which the likelihood and its gradients can be computed without Monte Carlo error (Wheeler and Ionides, 2025). MCAP algorithms can lead to efficient inference even in a limit where the Monte Carlo error grows as the amount of data increases (Ning et al., 2021). GPU hardware makes P&P likelihood-based inference feasible at previously intractable scales: one GPU fits a panel POMP model to the England and Wales measles data of Korevaar et al. (2020), over one million observations from 1,422 towns and cities, in 38 hours, compared with an estimated 4.8 months for `panelPomp` on a 36-core node (Section 3).

Algorithms to take advantage of JIT, AD, and GPU are an area of active development. Pypomp implements the MOP P&P DPF algorithm of Tan et al. (2026), with the resulting derivative being called DMOP and implemented as the `dmop` method. DMOP was demonstrated to be competitive on benchmark problems when combined with Adam stochastic gradient descent. A warm start using IF2 was found to be beneficial. Numerical random variable generation is a core operation for P&P methodology, and the development of sampling methods with favorable performance on GPU architectures is another current research topic. Pypomp includes optimized inverse transform sampling methods as alternatives to some `jax.random` samplers, as the rejection sampling methods used by `jax.random` are inefficient on GPUs (Giles, 2016; Giles and Beentjes, 2024; Temme, 1992). On a GPU, these samplers run 23 to 44 times faster than their `jax.random` counterparts on a benchmark, and although approximate, they stay close to the exact distributions: for every parameter value tested, quantiles of their draws differ from those of a reference sampler by at most 1.1% of a standard deviation on average, as measured by the Wasserstein-1 distance (Appendix C).

2 POMP Modeling in Pypomp

A POMP model consists of an unobserved Markov process $\{X(t), t_0 \le t \le t_N\}$ and observations $Y_{1:N}$ made at times $t_{1:N}$, with observed values $y^*_{1:N}$. The initial state is defined at time t_0, $X_n := X(t_n)$, and Y_n is independent of Y_m, X_m, $m \neq n$, conditional on X_n. Plug-and-play methods need only a simulator for the initial state, $X_0 \sim f_{X_0}(x_0;\theta)$, a simulator for the state transition, $X_{n+1} \sim f_{X_{n+1}|X_n}(x_{n+1}|x_n;\theta)$, and the measurement density $f_{Y_n|X_n}(y_n|x_n;\theta)$, where θ denotes the model parameters. In Pypomp, the user passes the data and JAX-compatible programmatic descriptions of these functions to build a model which is a `Pomp` class object. For P&P methods, it suffices to specify an initial value for the latent dynamic system (known as `rinit`), a latent process simulator (`rproc`), a measurement density simulator (`rmeas`) and a measurement density evaluator (`dmeas`). These basic model components are user-specified, and when supplied as arguments in a call to the constructor function, `Pomp`, they become accessible to methods defined for the `Pomp` class. Tutorials at `https://github.com/pypomp/tutorials` provide guidance on building user-specifed models. Demonstration models already included in Pypomp include a model for historical monthly cholera mortality in Dhaka, Bangladesh (`pypomp.models.dacca`), historical weekly measles cases in London, UK (`pypomp.models.??????`), daily closing price

for the S&P 500 index (`pypomp.models.spx`), and a panel model for measles cases in up to ????? towns and rural districts in England and Wales.

Pypomp vectorizes the user-supplied basic model components over particles and over replicate runs, such as when starting searches from many values of θ, and JIT compiles it so that the computation runs in parallel across GPU cores.

Given a `Pomp` object, one can run methods such as the particle filter (`pfilter`) for likelihood evaluation and state estimation, IF2 (`mif`) for global maximum likelihood estimation, and the DPF algorithm DMOP-α (`dmop`, Tan et al. (2026)) used within the `train` method uses for stochastic gradient descent optimization. The following example searches globally for the maximum likelihood estimate with IF2, refines the estimate by gradient descent, and evaluates the likelihood of the result:

```
import pypomp as pp
spx_obj = pp.models.spx()
key = jax.random.key(1)
rw_sd = pp.RWSigma( # Random walk standard deviations for IF2
    sigmas={"mu": 0.02, "kappa": 0.02, "theta": 0.02,
            "xi": 0.02, "rho": 0.02, "V_0": 0.1}, init_names=["V_0"],
).geometric_cooling(a=0.5)
spx_obj.mif(rw_sd=rw_sd, J=1000, M=10, key=key) # IF2
eta = pp.LearningRate(
  {name: 0.001 for name in spx_obj.canonical_param_names}
).geometric_decay(decay_rate=0.5, M=10) # Learning rates
spx_obj.train(J=1000, M=10, eta=eta, optimizer=pp.Adam()) # Gradient descent
spx_obj.pfilter(J=1000, reps=10) # Particle filter
```

Each method call stores its log-likelihood estimates, parameter traces, execution time, and arguments in `spx_obj.results_history`, and helpers such as `traces` return these in convenient formats such as a data frame. The JIT-compiled functions behind these methods are available in `pypomp.functional` for building custom inference procedures. The source code is available at `https://github.com/pypomp/pypomp`, documentation at `https://pypomp.readthedocs.io`, and tutorials that build complete models at `https://pypomp.github.io/tutorials`. The quantitative tests that validate the correctness and speed of Pypomp's main methods are available at `https://github.com/pypomp/quant`. [EI: MAYBE PUT THESE LINKS SOMEPLACE ELSE? CURRENTLY, THERE'S REDUNDANCY ABOUT THAT.]

A collection of POMP models (each referred to as a *unit*) is called a PanelPOMP (Bretó et al., 2020). Typically, some parameters are shared between units and others are unit-specific. Pypomp supports the marginalized panel iterated filtering (MPIF) algorithm (Wheeler et al., 2025) for models of class `PanelPomp`, and DMOP extends trivially to PanelPOMP models.

3 Performance

[EI: THIS IS PERHAPS MORE DETAIL THAN NEEDED IN THE MS. FULL DETAILS CAN GO IN THE APPENDIX OR THE QUANT REPO?]

Table 1: Wall-clock time in seconds for IF2, running 36 searches from the same starting points, with the workloads in Appendix A. *`panelPomp` for the 4-town panel. Ratio is the `pomp` time divided by the Pypomp time, and CPU cores matched is that ratio times 36. Peak cores matched is the highest throughput in terms of CPU cores matched in GPU scaling tests with more particles in flight (Appendix B).

Model	`pomp`* (36 cores)	Pypomp (1 GPU)	Ratio	CPU cores matched	Peak cores matched
Cholera, Dhaka	1,609	28.3	57×	2,045	3,239
Measles, London	2,923	32.2	91×	3,264	5,583
Measles, 4-town panel	8,262	98.2	84×	3,030	3,947
S&P 500	703	34.8	20×	727	8,659

We benchmarked Pypomp 1.0.5--1.0.8 against `pomp` 6.3 and `panelPomp` 1.7.0.0 on four models. The full code for the benchmark test is in the quantitative test suite at `https://github.com/pypomp/quant`. We report the results for commit f616c89) in this repository. Below, R refers to `pomp`, or `panelPomp` for the panel model, running in R 4.4.0 on a 36-core CPU node. The models differ in the cost of the process model, the number of process model steps between resampling, and whether they are panels, so together they show where the GPU helps most and least (Appendix A). Table 1 compares IF2 wall-clock times for the same workloads with R and with Pypomp on one RTX PRO 6000 Blackwell Server Edition GPU. These workloads are sized for R, and they keep only 36,000 to 180,000 particles in flight, too few to saturate the GPU. In scaling tests that add more searches or more particles per search (Appendix B), throughput keeps rising until 1.0 to 2 million particles are in flight. At that point, one GPU matches 3,239 to 8,659 CPU cores running R, the Peak column of Table 1. The S&P 500 model gains the most from scaling because its benchmark, with 1,000 particles per search and a cheap process model, gives the GPU the least work. The GPU times for the measles models rely on the approximate samplers in `pypomp.random`: with the standard `jax.random` samplers, IF2 for the London measles model took 46 times longer (Appendix C). Fitting the measles model of He et al. (2010) to all 1,422 towns and cities for 1950–1963 took one GPU 38 hours, including likelihood evaluation, versus an estimated 4.8 months for R on a 36-core node, extrapolating linearly from `panelPomp`'s cost on the 4-town panel (Appendix D).

4 Conclusion

[EI: SOMEWHERE, WE SHOULD CONSIDER TALKING ABOUT (I) THE PYPOMP ORGANIZATION AND ITS GOVERNANCE; (II) OTHER RESOURCES, E.G. TUTORIALS AND PUBLISHED CASE STUDIES.]

The computational cost of PF has hindered likelihood evaluation and statistical inference for POMP models and therefore obstructed scientific investigations. Pypomp's flexibility in model specification, its speed at PF, and the availability of DPF, will allow practitioners to fit new models more quickly, facilitating investigations of model structure. Some models and datasets that were previously considered impractical for likelihood-based inference (Becker

and Grenfell, 2017) will become feasible, as demonstrated in Appendix D. Although Pypomp can run on CPU hardware, it gains capability from access to GPUs that are becoming increasingly widely available.

[EI: WE CAN DECIDE WHETHER TO INCLUDE THE DOI IN THE REFERENCE. IN THIS FORMAT, IT MAY BE UNNECESSARY.]

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Appendix A. Full benchmark results

The four benchmark models stress different parts of the particle filter, which helps locate performance bottlenecks.

Cholera, Dhaka. The cholera model of King et al. (2008) has 600 monthly observations with 20 Euler steps between each, and each step updates a stochastic differential equation with one normal draw. The process model is cheap, but there are many steps between resamples, so this model isolates the per-step overhead inside the process model.

Measles, London. The measles model of He et al. (2010) has weekly case reports from 1950 to 1963 and takes a daily Euler step, interpolating covariates and drawing binomial, gamma, and Poisson random variables at every step. It has the most expensive process model of the four, so it isolates how the GPU handles heavy computation per particle, and it relies on the approximate samplers in `pypomp.random` (Appendix C).

Measles, 4-town panel. The panel model fits the same measles model to London, Halesworth, Hastings, and Cardiff jointly, with some parameters shared across towns and the rest specific to each town. MPIF (Wheeler et al., 2025) filters the towns sequentially within each iteration, so an iteration costs about four single-town iterations with the same number of particles in flight. This model tests the panel methods used in Appendix D. Its ratio of R [EI: HERE AND ELSEWEHRE: THIS IS CONFUSING, BECAUSE R TIME IS pomp AND GPU TIME IS Pypomp. MAYBE JUST SAY pomp OR DEFINE AND USE R-pomp?] time to GPU time is lower than for the London model because R runs it relatively fast, likely because the random variate generators in R can take a cheaper route for the smaller parameter values of the smaller towns.

S&P 500. The stochastic volatility model of Bretó (2014) has 3,523 daily log returns and takes one step of its process model per observation, with a single normal draw. Each step between resamples is very cheap, so fixed per-observation costs such as resampling can dominate.

R and Pypomp run the same workload in a given benchmark. Each benchmark runs 36 IF2 searches from the same starting points and then runs replicate particle filters at each search's IF2 estimate, with as many particles per filter as per search. The cholera and both measles benchmarks use 5,000 particles, 100 IF2 iterations, and 36 particle filter replicates, and the S&P 500 benchmark uses 1,000 particles, 200 iterations, and 24 replicates.

Table 2 extends Table 1 with particle filter times and Pypomp on the same 36-core CPU node as R, which splits the GPU's advantage into a software part and a hardware part. On the same CPU node, Pypomp is 2.6 to 5.6 times faster than R, and moving Pypomp to the GPU makes it another 1.4 to 33 times faster. These workloads are sized for R and too small to saturate the GPU, so the hardware and total ratios understate what the GPU can do. At its peak throughput in the scaling tests (Appendix B), one GPU runs IF2 90 to 241 times as fast as R on the 36-core node.

Table 2: Wall-clock time in seconds for IF2 and for particle filter (PF) evaluation, with the workloads described above. Pypomp IF2 and PF times include JIT compilation. *`panelPomp` for the 4-town panel. Software is the `pomp` time divided by the Pypomp time on the same 36 cores, hardware is the Pypomp CPU time divided by the Pypomp GPU time, and total is their product, the `pomp` time divided by the Pypomp GPU time. These workloads do not saturate the GPU, so the hardware and total ratios understate its throughput; peak cores matched in Table 1 gives the GPU's highest measured IF2 throughput. The 4-town panel has no Pypomp CPU run.

		`pomp`*	Pypomp		Ratio		
Model	Task	36 cores	36 cores	1 GPU	Software	Hardware	Total
Cholera, Dhaka	IF2	1,609	390	28.3	4.1×	14×	57×
	PF	380	67.8	8.2	5.6×	8.3×	46×
Measles, London	IF2	2,923	1,071	32.2	2.7×	33×	91×
	PF	895	302	14.5	3.0×	21×	62×
Measles, 4-town panel	IF2	8,262	—	98.2	—	—	84×
	PF	2,252	—	33.7	—	—	67×
S&P 500	IF2	703	275	34.8	2.6×	7.9×	20×
	PF	36.4	7.4	5.2	4.9×	1.4×	7.0×

Appendix B. GPU scaling tests

The benchmarks in Table 1 and Table 2 use the R configuration, which does not give the GPU enough work to reach its highest throughput for every model. The scaling tests in quant ran IF2 on one RTX PRO 6000 Blackwell Server Edition GPU with more particles in flight, added in two ways: more searches of 1,000 particles each, or more particles for each of a fixed number of searches. Each configuration ran in its own process and ran a short IF2 twice, so that the second run excludes JIT compilation. We project each configuration's time to the benchmark's number of IF2 iterations, including compilation, and divide the benchmark's R time by it to get the number of CPU cores running R that one GPU matches. This assumes that R's time grows linearly with the number of particles and searches. The highest of these values is the Peak column of Table 1. JAX's memory preallocation was turned off, so the peak GPU memory is the memory each configuration used. No scaling test used more than 1.8 GB of GPU memory, the peak for the cholera model with 2.4 million particles.

Figure 1 shows the results. For every model, throughput peaks at between 1.0 and 2.0 million particles and falls or plateaus at larger sizes. The peak is 1.6 times the benchmark for the cholera model, 1.7 times for the London measles model, 1.3 times for the 4-town panel, and 11.9 times for the S&P 500 model. The S&P 500 model gains the most because its benchmark, with cheap steps and few particles, leaves the GPU mostly idle. For this model, adding searches beats adding particles per search at a given total number of particles by an average of 6%. Consequently, there is not a large difference in speed between adding searches or particles per search on the GPU in terms of scaling with total particles.

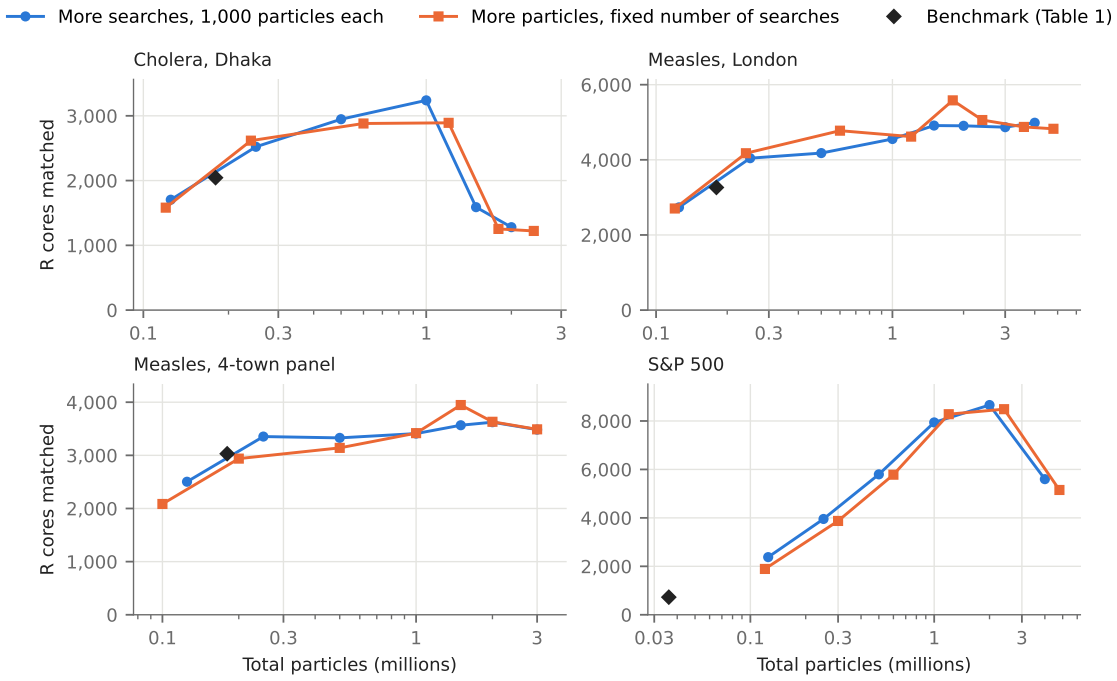


Figure 1: IF2 throughput on one GPU, as the number of CPU cores running R that the GPU matches, against the total number of particles in flight. Blue adds searches of 1,000 particles each; orange adds particles to each of 100 or 120 searches. Each configuration ran 3 or 10 IF2 iterations, projected to the benchmark's number. The x-axes use a log scale.

Table 3: Time in milliseconds for 1,000,000 draws from `pypomp.random` and `jax.random`, on one GPU and on one CPU core, with parameters spread across the values where the samplers switch algorithms. Ratio is the `jax.random` time divided by the `pypomp.random` time. `jax.random` has no negative binomial sampler. Max W_1/σ is the largest Wasserstein distance between `pypomp.random` draws and draws from `jax.random` (or `scipy.stats` for the negative binomial) over a grid of parameter values, relative to the standard deviation.

	GPU			CPU			
Distribution	`pypomp`	`jax`	Ratio	`pypomp`	`jax`	Ratio	Max W_1/σ
Poisson	0.03	1.05	35×	37.17	1,321	36×	0.010
Binomial	0.02	1.07	44×	24.56	1,349	55×	0.010
Gamma	0.03	0.76	23×	118	3,046	26×	0.011
Negative binomial	0.07	—	—	187	—	—	0.009

Appendix C. Random variable samplers

`jax.random` draws Poisson, binomial, and gamma random variables with rejection samplers, which loop a random number of times per draw. This suits GPUs poorly, since threads that run together wait for the slowest one. `pypomp.random` instead provides approximate inverse-CDF samplers, which avoid rejection loops. Table 3 compares the two on 1,000,000 draws per call, with parameters spread across the values where each sampler switches algorithms, averaged over 20 calls. The approximation error is small: over a grid of parameter values, the Wasserstein distance between 1,000,000 draws from each `pypomp.random` sampler and from a reference sampler is at most 1.1% of the reference standard deviation. In the London measles benchmark, the `jax.random` samplers made IF2 46 times slower and particle filtering 36 times slower on the GPU.

Appendix D. England and Wales measles fit

We ran 36 MPIF searches, each with 10,000 particles for 200 iterations, and evaluated each endpoint with 36 particle filter replicates of 5,000 particles. We then combined the best estimate for each town across searches and evaluated the result with another 36 replicates. Table 4 gives the time for each stage on one GPU with Pypomp 1.0.8.

For comparison, we estimated how long the same computation would take with `panelPomp` on a 36-core CPU node. We measured `panelPomp`'s cost per particle, per IF2 iteration, and per town on the 4-town panel in Table 2, which covers the same period with the same daily time step, and scaled it linearly to the full computation. We assume `panelPomp` fits the towns jointly with MPIF, as Pypomp did, so each search runs on one core and does not parallelize across units – this would be necessary in the general case when using shared parameters. By this estimate, R would need about 4.8 months, 92 times longer than the GPU, and about 14.3 years on a single core, so the GPU delivered the throughput of about 3,300 CPU cores running R. The wall clock time can be reduced further by spreading the replication over multiple GPUs; for example, a run with the same settings but only 12

Table 4: Wall-clock time for fitting the measles model to all towns in England and Wales. Pypomp times were measured on one GPU. R times are estimates for `panelPomp` on a 36-core CPU node, extrapolated from the 4-town panel in Table 2.

Stage	Pypomp (1 GPU)	R `panelPomp`, 36 cores (estimated)
IF2	35.5 hours	136.0 days
PF, all search endpoints	2.5 hours	9.3 days
PF, combined estimate	6 minutes	6.2 hours
Total	38.1 hours	145.5 days

searches took one GPU 15 hours, so three GPUs running 12 searches each would finish in about 15 hours instead of 38.